

# Heat Flow, Geometry, and Ricci Flow

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# Overview of Presentation

- ▶ Heat flow acts as a smoothing process.
- ▶ The behavior of heat depends on the underlying space.
- ▶ Geometry is encoded by a metric.
- ▶ Curvature measures how that geometry bends.
- ▶ Ricci flow: evolve the metric the same way heat evolves temperature.

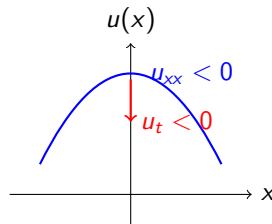
# 1D Heat Flow and the Laplacian

Before looking at surfaces, consider the 1D heat equation:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = u_{xx}.$$

**Why the second derivative?** It measures *concavity*.

- ▶ If  $u_{xx} < 0$  (concave down), temperature is a local maximum  $\Rightarrow$  heat flows away ( $u_t < 0$ ).
- ▶ If  $u_{xx} > 0$  (concave up), temperature is a local minimum  $\Rightarrow$  heat flows in ( $u_t > 0$ ).



# Heat Equation in $\mathbb{R}^2$

We expand this to the classical heat equation in Cartesian coordinates:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = u_{xx} + u_{yy} = \Delta u.$$

- ▶  $u(x, y, t)$  = temperature
- ▶ Heat flows from high to low
- ▶ The Laplacian  $\Delta u$  measures the “average concavity” in all directions.

# Boundary Conditions

To solve the heat equation on a bounded domain, we must specify what happens at the boundary  $\partial M$ .

## Dirichlet Boundary Condition

Fixes the temperature at the boundary.

$$u(x, t) = 0 \quad \text{for } x \in \partial M.$$

*Physical meaning:* The boundary is held at a constant temperature (e.g., submerged in ice water).

## Neumann Boundary Condition

Fixes the heat flux across the boundary.

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial n}(x, t) = 0 \quad \text{for } x \in \partial M.$$

*Physical meaning:* The boundary is perfectly insulated; no heat enters or escapes.

# Heat Equation in Polar Coordinates

In polar coordinates  $(r, \theta)$ , the Laplacian changes form. The heat equation becomes:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = \Delta_{\text{polar}} u = u_{rr} + \frac{1}{r} u_r + \frac{1}{r^2} u_{\theta\theta}$$

- ▶ Same physics, different coordinates
- ▶ Extra terms come from geometry
- ▶ Laplacian depends on how we measure space

## Remark

This comes from rewriting the Laplacian using the chain rule. The extra terms ( $\frac{1}{r} u_r$ , etc.) reflect how distances and areas change as you move away from the origin.

# What is a Metric?

- ▶ A metric tells us how to measure **distance, angle, and area**
- ▶ It encodes the geometry of the space

## Examples

Flat (Cartesian):

$$ds^2 = dx^2 + dy^2.$$

Polar:

$$ds^2 = dr^2 + r^2 d\theta^2.$$

- ▶ Even flat space looks different under different coordinates.
- ▶ The metric determines how derivatives behave.

# Laplacian Depends on Geometry

- ▶ In general, we write the Laplacian as  $\Delta_g$ .
- ▶ The metric  $g$  determines how we compute derivatives.
- ▶ Different metrics  $\Rightarrow$  different Laplacians.
- ▶ Therefore: geometry directly affects heat flow.

metric  $\rightarrow$  Laplacian  $\rightarrow$  heat equation.



# Conformal Metrics and Weight Functions

## Definition

A metric  $g$  is *conformal* to the flat metric if there exists a strictly positive weight function  $u(x, y)$  such that:

$$g = u(x, y)(dx^2 + dy^2).$$

- ▶ In 1D, this looks like  $g = u(x)dx^2$ .
- ▶ The metric is obtained by scaling the flat metric.
- ▶ Angles are preserved, but lengths are rescaled by  $\sqrt{u}$ .
- ▶ Large  $u$  stretches distances; small  $u$  shrinks them.
- ▶ Geometry is encoded entirely in the weight function  $u$ .

# The Graph of $u$ vs. The Surface Itself

It is crucial to distinguish between the function  $u(x, y)$  and the geometry it creates.

## The Graph of $u$ :

- ▶ The set of points  $(x, y, u(x, y))$  in  $\mathbb{R}^3$ .
- ▶ This is a 2D surface sitting *extrinsically* inside 3D space.

## The Surface defined by the metric $g = u(x, y)(dx^2 + dy^2)$ :

- ▶ This defines the *intrinsic* geometry of a 2D space.
- ▶ You do not need a 3D ambient space to measure distances here.
- ▶ Walking on the  $xy$ -plane with a “stretchy ruler” defined by  $u(x, y)$  is fundamentally different from walking on the 3D graph of  $u$ .

# Fubini–Study Metric

A classic example of a conformal metric on the sphere  $S^2 \cong \mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\}$  is the Fubini-Study metric:

$$g_{FS} = \frac{4}{(1 + x^2 + y^2)^2} (dx^2 + dy^2).$$

Here, our conformal weight function is:

$$u(x, y) = \frac{4}{(1 + x^2 + y^2)^2}.$$

This maps the flat plane to the standard round sphere via stereographic projection.

# Curvature of the Fubini-Study Metric

For a conformal metric  $g = u(x, y)(dx^2 + dy^2)$ , the Gaussian curvature  $K$  is given by:

$$K = -\frac{1}{2u}\Delta(\ln u).$$

Let's calculate  $K$  for Fubini-Study, where  $u = 4(1 + r^2)^{-2}$  and  $r^2 = x^2 + y^2$ :

$$\ln u = \ln 4 - 2 \ln(1 + r^2)$$

$$\Delta(\ln u) = \left( \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x^2} + \frac{\partial^2}{\partial y^2} \right) (\ln 4 - 2 \ln(1 + r^2))$$

$$\partial_x \ln(1 + r^2) = \frac{2x}{1 + r^2} \implies \partial_{xx} \ln(1 + r^2) = \frac{2(1 + r^2) - 4x^2}{(1 + r^2)^2} = \frac{2 - 2x^2 + 2y^2}{(1 + r^2)^2}$$

$$\Delta \ln(1 + r^2) = \frac{2 - 2x^2 + 2y^2 + 2 - 2y^2 + 2x^2}{(1 + r^2)^2} = \frac{4}{(1 + r^2)^2}$$

$$\Delta(\ln u) = -2 \left( \frac{4}{(1 + r^2)^2} \right) = -\frac{8}{(1 + r^2)^2}.$$

## Curvature of the Fubini-Study Metric (Cont.)

Plugging the Laplacian back into our curvature formula:

$$\begin{aligned} K &= -\frac{1}{2u} \Delta(\ln u) \\ &= -\frac{1}{2 \left( \frac{4}{(1+r^2)^2} \right)} \left( -\frac{8}{(1+r^2)^2} \right) \\ &= \frac{(1+r^2)^2}{8} \cdot \frac{8}{(1+r^2)^2} \\ &= 1. \end{aligned}$$

The Fubini-Study metric describes a surface of **constant positive curvature**  $K = 1$ , which perfectly matches our geometric intuition of a standard sphere.

# Connections and the Geodesic Equation

How do things move straight in a curved space? We need a **connection** ( $\nabla$ ) to tell us how vectors change as we move.

The metric determines the Levi-Civita connection, expressed via Christoffel symbols  $\Gamma_{ij}^k$ .

## The Geodesic Equation

A path  $\gamma(t)$  is a geodesic (a “straight line” in curved space) if its acceleration is zero with respect to the connection:

$$\nabla_{\dot{\gamma}} \dot{\gamma} = 0.$$

In local coordinates, this gives a system of 2nd-order ODEs:

$$\frac{d^2 \gamma^k}{dt^2} + \sum_{i,j} \Gamma_{ij}^k \frac{d\gamma^i}{dt} \frac{d\gamma^j}{dt} = 0.$$

# The Ricci Flow Equation

Introduced by Richard Hamilton (1982), Ricci flow evolves the metric  $g(t)$  to smooth out irregular curvature, governed by the Ricci curvature tensor  $\text{Ric}$ :

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} g_{ij} = -2\text{Ric}_{ij} + \rho g_{ij}.$$

For 2D surfaces,  $\text{Ric}_{ij} = Kg_{ij}$ , where  $K$  is the Gaussian curvature. The scalar  $\rho$  dictates the type of flow:

- ▶  $\rho = 0$  (**Unnormalized Ricci Flow**): The space shrinks or expands depending on the sign of curvature. Positive curvature shrinks to a point.
- ▶  $\rho = \rho_t$  (**Normalized Ricci Flow**): Here,  $\rho_t$  is the time-dependent average curvature. This formulation preserves the total area of the surface as it evolves.
- ▶  $\rho = \text{constant}$  (**Yamabe Flow**): Evolving the metric by a constant scalar times the metric.

# Ricci Flow on Surfaces

For our 2D conformal metric  $g = u(x, y, t)(dx^2 + dy^2)$ , the unnormalized Ricci flow equation simplifies drastically.

Since  $\frac{\partial g}{\partial t} = -2Kg$ , and  $g = u(dx^2 + dy^2)$ , the weight function evolves according to:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = -2Ku.$$

Substitute  $K = -\frac{1}{2u}\Delta(\ln u)$ , and we get a diffusion-like equation for the conformal factor!